



Gender Awareness in Modeling Structural Adjustment

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Summary. — The macroeconomic models underpinning the design of structural adjustment programs are gender-blind. This paper discusses strategies for introducing gender analysis into these models and evaluates the strengths and weaknesses of the models from a gender perspective. It concludes that besides being blind to gender, the models are also blind to the waste of resources and impoverishment that stems from deficient aggregate demand, undemocratic decision making and directly unproductive expenditures that buttress male power. This waste is, however, likely to be diminished by moves to more egalitarian systems of gender relations, entailing changes in the structure of entitlements and the social matrix in which macroeconomic processes are embedded.

1. INTRODUCTION

More than 100 structural adjustment programs have been introduced since 1980 in the developing countries of the South at the instigation of the World Bank. The objective of such programs according to numerous World Bank documents is to introduce policy changes which permit a reduction of balance-of-payments deficits and budget deficits while at the same time boosting growth rates through policy changes which are supposed to improve the efficiency of resource use and liberate resources for private sector business investment. Structural adjustment programs (SAPs) have two components: a package of aid finance from the World Bank and other multilateral and bilateral donors, and a package of economic reforms, introduction of which is specified as a condition for release of the aid. The macroeconomic analysis underpinning SAPs also has two components: a relatively simple one-good model — the Revised Minimum Standard Model (RMSM), derived from the Harrod-Domar model — is used for attempting to quantify how much aid a country needs; in addition, a two-good (tradables and non-tradables) model, based on the Swan-Salter model of the small dependent economy, is used to analyze the restructuring of expenditure and production. This paper considers strategies for introducing gender into these models; and evaluates both the strengths and weaknesses of these models from a gender perspective.

Section 1 discusses strategies for making macro models gender-aware. Section 2 considers just which structures are adjusting. The key features of the RMSM are introduced in section 3; followed in section 4 by an analysis of how gender can be introduced

into the RMSM, and a critique of the RMSM from a gender perspective. Section 5 introduces the tradables-nontradables model of adjustment, while section 6 appraises Collier's gender-disaggregated version of the model. Section 7 puts forward some theses about gender and aggregation processes. Section 8 offers some brief conclusions.

2. GENDER AWARENESS: PERSPECTIVES AND PARAMETERS

The most obvious way of introducing gender into a macroeconomic model is to disaggregate at least one of the variables by gender. This procedure would fit very well into the gender analysis framework proposed by the World Bank, which emphasizes the socially and culturally constructed gender differentiation of economic agents (World Bank, 1994). Its use to analyze gender and adjustment by Professor Paul Collier, of the Centre for the Study of African Economies, University of Oxford is discussed in section 6. This strategy emphasizes the discontinuities of gender but tends not to call into question the basic vision of the model itself.

A second strategy is to look at the economy from women's viewpoint and to identify missing variables which have a particular gender significance and bring

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them into the model. Thus a nonmonetized "social reproduction"¹ sector may be added as a constraint or resource to a model which initially focuses only on the market economy (see Walters, this issue). This strategy implies a critique and extension of the vision implicit in the preexisting model, with an emphasis on the bounds that the missing variables may place upon those variables that are included.

A third strategy is to conceptualize the economy as a gendered structure (see Elson and McGee, this issue). This entails recognizing that the matrix of gender relations² is an intervening variable in all economic activities: economic institutions which are not themselves intrinsically gendered, are nevertheless bearers of gender (Whitehead, 1979; Elson, 1993). That is, although relations between buyer and seller, lender and borrower, employer and employee, and provider and user of public services, are not gender ascriptive in the way that kin relations are, they are nevertheless permeated by gender via the norms and networks that are essential for the functioning of incomplete contracts; via the constitution of property rights; and via the endogenous constitution of the behavioral characteristics of economic agents. If the economy is seen as a gendered structure, then the parameters of a model may be seen as reflecting that structure. A different institutional configuration of gender relations will tend to result in a different set of parameters. This approach modifies the preexisting vision of any model through introducing the idea that gender relations, like class relations, affect the functioning of the market economy from within. It goes beyond the idea (explored by Taylor, this issue) that the domains of macroeconomics and gender relations are two separate and interacting domains, to suggest that the macroeconomy is itself gendered via the institutions through which economic agents operate. But it does not necessarily entail a critique of the ways in which a model depicts the interaction of financial relations and real resource utilization based on its treatment of the aggregation of millions of separate transactions into processes of growth or stagnation, boom or bust.

To deal with this point, a fourth strategy is needed that looks at the process of aggregation itself as a gendered process; and asks questions about how priorities are established, and who gives way when agents' decisions do not add-up to a coherent whole. This implies looking at the "closure" of the model, and the coordination process implicit in it, from a gender perspective.

There are clearly parallels with ways in which class relations can be introduced into macroeconomic models, as distributional variables or as dimensions of the "social matrix" which comprises "politically relevant groups, the major economic variables which affect them, and those variables over which they have some control" (Taylor, 1988, p. 21). In the following

analysis we sometimes refer to these parallels. The main focus is gender, however, because this dimension has remained largely unexplored.

Gender relations are understood as dynamic and historical rather than as static; that is as relations which are continually subject to decomposition and recomposition (Elson and Pearson, 1981) in planned and unplanned interactions between people (as individuals and collectives) and institutions.³ They will also be understood as policy variables in the sense that they can be reshaped by deliberate public action to change institutions, albeit policy variables that are much more complex than the exchange rate or the rate of income tax. Gender inequality will be understood as stemming from women's lack of independent entitlements, which is closely linked to ways in which caring for people is articulated with getting a living (Elson, 1991a). From this point of view, more equal gender relations are associated with women having greater control over resources (associated with a new articulation of production and social reproduction), not simply with women participating more in the labor and goods markets, or being more often targeted by policy makers.

3. WHICH STRUCTURES ARE ADJUSTING?

The processes set in motion by SAPs may be seen as fundamentally matters of changes in the structure of entitlements. The implementation of SAPs implies reconfiguration of social, political and economic power in favor of the rights of owners of large-scale money capital, from International Financial Institutions in Washington to merchants in newly liberalized markets in developing countries (Beneria and Feldman, 1992; Elson, 1992, 1994b, 1995; Mbilinyi, 1990; Standing, 1989; Ruccio, 1991). In effect, adjustment programs attempt to recreate the privatized production of "classical capitalism"⁴; and also to privatize the costs of social reproduction. In some circumstances this may lead to new patterns of increased investment in real assets, and restructuring takes place with growth, especially at locations favored by internationally mobile capital. In less favored locations it leads to the run down of public investment, with no compensating increase in real private sector investment, and restructuring takes place with stagnation and increases burdens on most women, through extension and intensification of their work (see Floro, this issue). The former has been more characteristic of Asia⁵; and the latter of sub-Saharan Africa and Latin America.⁶ To suggest that this is due to purely internal factors would be to commit the fallacy of composition — international competition implies uneven development.

Restructuring with growth is preferable in that it

leads to higher levels of employment and consumption than restructuring with stagnation; but in both cases the restructuring entails the subordination of more and more activities and people to a calculus of financial profit and loss and to the vagaries of market forces with the attendant risks of entitlement failure. This may be efficient in the short run in extracting the resources required to service the debt burden and keep repayments flowing to the World Bank and the International Monetary Fund (IMF), but it is by no means self-evidently efficient from the perspective of improving social productivity so as to meet long-run human development objectives. This is because it may lead to a variety of forms of human resource depletion, either through enforced overwork or enforced idleness, both of which are conducive to the deterioration of human mental and physical capabilities (Elson, 1994a); and because it fails to mobilize human resources in the most creative and productive ways to meet human needs.

The World Bank puts forward the idea that deregulated markets will generate the "right prices" and thus promote a labor-intensive growth pattern that will meet the needs of those who own little or no capital (World Bank, 1990b). But a detailed analysis of the externalities associated with the reproduction and use of labor power undermines confidence in this strategy. Dasgupta, examining the issue from a physical efficiency wage point of view concludes that "in a poor economy markets on their own are incapable of empowering all people with the opportunity to convert their potential labour power into actual labour power" (Dasgupta, 1993, p. 477). Pagano, (1991), emphasizing the asset-specificity of labor power and incompleteness of property rights over this asset in "deregulated" labor markets concludes that a greater incentive to invest in machines rather than in workers stems from the property rights of "classical capitalism."

In such an entitlement structure, most people do not so much choose how to allocate their labor, as move hither and thither, propelled and repulsed by a now swelling, now falling tide of capital accumulation. Rather than a symmetrical interaction of interdependent supply and demand, there is a one-sided dependency of the owners of labor power upon the owners of large scale capital. No matter how low the wages, capital accumulation tends to destroy jobs by replacing people with machines, as well as create jobs by expanding output. As Marx puts it, in his discussion of capital accumulation in the nineteenth century:

It is not a case of two independent forces working on each other. Les dés sont pipés.⁸ Capital acts on both sides at once (Marx, 1976, p. 793).

One can see capital acting "on both sides at once" in the local and global processes that have propelled many young women into the tradable manufacturing

sector in Asia and the Caribbean and which underlie the increased feminization of the labor force associated with SAPs (see Çağatay and Özler, this issue). Those processes begin with destruction of alternative remunerative job opportunities for the women, and for their fathers, brothers and husbands. This is followed by the offer of a new kind of "women's work," often with higher wages than those offered elsewhere, but with long hours of stressful work. Once alternative livelihoods have been weakened or destroyed, existing gender relations prove malleable. Even in countries such as Bangladesh with a tradition of seclusion of young women, ways are found to reconcile the employment of young women in factories with social and religious restrictions on "respectable" behavior (Feldman, 1992). Wives and daughters become a more economically valuable asset. But the subordination of women is reinscribed into the organization of the factory, with women concentrated at the bottom of the occupational hierarchy in dead-end jobs with little security (Pearson, 1992; Elson and Pearson, 1981). Research on Taiwan and South Korea shows that high rates of export-orientated industrial growth are quite compatible with the maintenance of a high degree of gender inequality in earnings and employment conditions and opportunities (Berik, 1995; Seguino, 1994).

The women who are propelled into work in export-oriented factories do, however, have the advantage in working in an expanding sector where their earnings are likely to rise absolutely, even if not relatively to those of men. The same is not true of the many women impelled to work as domestic servants and petty traders for falling earnings in a stagnating sector; nor of the men made redundant from construction sites and factories producing import substitutes for whom the main "masculine" alternative opportunity is all too often petty crime (for further discussion of evidence see Elson, 1995; Moser, 1992). Moreover, high levels of unemployment and marginalization from the process of capital accumulation is not merely a transitional phenomenon. It is built into the internal structure of "classical capitalism," providing a means of disciplining workers in an unequal labor market and providing the flexibility for rapid responses to new opportunities on the part of a mass of uncoordinated individual firms (Sawyer, 1989; Green, 1988). But unemployment and marginalization also reduces demand for the output of the private business sector and thereby increase risks. This can create a vicious circle of stagnation, holding back the commitment of investment in real assets (Sawyer, 1989). The attempt to recreate the conditions of classical capitalism in Africa and Latin America has not so far unleashed a dynamic private sector enthusiastic to make long-term investment. Stable growth with full employment on a general scale is likely to require a different reconfiguration of entitlements to produce a more inclusive process of aggregation of myriads of individual deci-

sions, capable of internalizing dynamic external economies and creating better macro synthesis of micro-level decisions (see Howes and Singh, this issue, for a discussion of this point in terms of a national corporatist compact; Elson, 1988, considers this issue in terms of socialization of the market).

The World Bank view of which entitlement structures need to adjust and are adjusting is rather different. Emphasis placed on the reduction of the role of the state (including cuts in public expenditure) and the removal of policy-induced distortions in prices, wages and interest rates. This is seen as strengthening the independent position of owners of small and medium-scale enterprises (especially farmers and manufacturers) and is frequently accompanied by a rhetoric of "empowering the people." The fate of owners of small and medium-scale productive capital, however, is generally related in practice to the buoyancy of aggregate demand and the plans of owners of large-scale capital (both financial and productive) on whom small firms are often dependent for inputs and for markets. The self-employed owners of small enterprises, no less than those who possess only their own labor power, also find themselves in markets in which the dice are loaded against them. In the real world, there is plenty of evidence to suggest that micro-level efficiency is no guarantee of macro-level sustainability, but World Bank models are built in ways that eliminate this disturbing possibility.

4. THE REVISED MINIMUM STANDARD MODEL

Let us now turn to the first of the models we shall be considering. The Revised Minimum Standard Model (RMSM) is said to be the most widely used macro model in the World Bank (Tarp, 1993). It is a multisector variant of the two-gap (savings and foreign exchange) growth model developed by Chenery and Strout (1966) on the basis of a full-capacity utilization version of the Harrod-Domar model. It is used to derive estimates of the foreign aid required to achieve a specified real output growth target on the basis of estimated, or assumed, values of savings ratios, import ratios and Incremental Capital-Output Ratios (ICORs).⁹

As a set of equations depicting an equilibrium, this model specifies no particular pattern of entitlements. It is silent on the issues of who owns the capital stock and how labor is reproduced and mobilized to use that stock. It does not specify how savings are generated; and or how foreign exchange flows into the economy and by whom its patterns of use are determined. It contains no explicit statements about the relation of patterns of entitlements to the parameters of the model and to the processes through which aggregation takes

place and equilibrium is established. In applying the model, however, implicit assumptions are made about entitlement structures and about how they affect the working of the model.

It is apparently common practice to iterate the model introducing a series of changes in the parameters; and to assume that the level of consumption is residually determined, so that the savings gap is suppressed and foreign exchange for the import of physical capital is left as the binding constraint (Tarp, 1993).

A rationale for expecting parameter changes during the course of adjustment programs can be found in the policy conditions attached to structural adjustment loans, which are expected to reduce capital-output and import coefficients and increase savings propensities, through exogenously introduced reductions in price distortions, leading to a lower level of rent-seeking behavior and less engagement in directly unproductive activities.

This is premised on a particular kind of entitlement structure, that of a "mixed economy" with a large self-interested profit-driven private business sector and a public sector also driven by self-interest, but in pursuit of political power as well as financial gain (Kreuger, 1974). Structural adjustment programs change the public/private balance of this pattern of entitlements in the short run through changing exchange entitlements, through market liberalization and cutbacks in state expenditure; in the longer run through changing resource endowments, by privatization of public assets.

The presence of this kind of entitlements structure, however, may be thought to call into question the assumption of full-capacity utilization. In Harrod's original application of the model, the whole economy was assumed to consist of privately owned, profit-seeking businesses and in Harrod's view this raised important problems about the incentive to invest — private businesses would only invest if they believed this to be warranted by their expectations about demand. Steady growth with full capacity utilization was a happy accident, but there were no systematic forces operating to bring this about (see Walters, this issue). The assumption of full-capacity utilization is more plausible in an economy in which those making investment decisions do not have to worry too much about the rate of return to investment because there are soft budget constraints and a state which will always act as buyer of last resort. These conditions are much more characteristic of centrally planned or highly *dirigiste* economies with very small private sectors — just the opposite of what structural adjustment programs are designed to create.

There is thus a degree of incoherence between the assumption that the model can be applied iteratively with improvements in the parameters resulting from liberalization and privatization and the assumption

that the full-capacity utilization rule can be left unchanged.

Moreover, no attention appears to be paid to possibility of SAPs leading to deterioration of the parameters. But a variety of scenarios can be constructed in which this may happen owing to interdependence of variables and parameters which the RMSM takes as independent. For instance, the level and productivity of private sector investment may depend positively on the level of public sector infrastructural investment, ("crowding in" rather than "crowding out") so that cutbacks in the latter may lead to declines in the former. The productivity of public and private sector investment may depend positively on the level of wages and job security and other welfare benefits, so that if labor market liberalization leads to a drop in wages and in job security, productivity declines. The propensity of households to save may depend negatively on the availability of imported consumer durables, so that import liberalization leads to a drop in the savings parameter. The propensity of governments to save may depend negatively on the availability of quick-disbursing aid for import support. *A priori*, it is difficult to say which would be likely to be stronger, the positive or negative impacts of SAPs on the parameters. But some acknowledgement of potential negative impacts would help to temper what appears to have often been considerable overoptimism about the positive impacts.

A comparable insouciance is displayed in the assumption that consumption may be taken to be the residual variable without considering that decline in aggregate consumption may entail entitlement failure for many poor people; and may have negative feedbacks (through both supply side and demand side effects) on aggregate output. It may also lead to civil disorder and violent resistance to SAPs. As Tarp, 1993, comments, this assumption may make neither economic nor political sense.

Certainly, it makes no sense to assume that all consumption is discretionary (Dasgupta, 1993); and it is highly risky to assume that any required compression of consumption can be achieved without jeopardizing the necessary (or productive) consumption of some groups, as studies of poverty and structural adjustment have clearly shown (Cornia, Jolly and Stewart, 1987).

The role of income distribution in the determination of aggregate output has been stressed in structuralist macroeconomics.¹⁰ The behavior of the economy is held to depend critically upon the distribution of income between different social classes which are assumed to have different consumption and savings behavior. Reactions to policy changes will generally involve redistribution of income and frequently entail conflict between competing claims on output. The "closure" of structuralist models can take a variety of forms, the two most common being variations in the level of output (via a Keynesian multiplier effect) in

which the necessary changes in savings to close any *ex-ante* gap is generated primarily through increased incomes; and variations in the level of consumption through "forced savings" brought about by price increases which crowd some social groups out of the market. Which social groups bear the brunt of "forced savings" depends on the social matrix (Taylor, 1988, p. 21). If the groups affected by forced savings have sufficient power to try to counteract forced savings by raising their money incomes, then the scene is set for a stagflationary response, rather than a convergence to a stable level of output and prices. Structuralist macroeconomics has not, however, emphasized class differentiation as a factor in the production, as distinct from the distribution, of aggregate output.

In general, there are some strong arguments suggesting that all types of undemocratic and nonparticipatory processes of decision making about the volume, allocation and use of investment in both public and private sectors lead to a loss in social productivity compared with what would be likely to prevail under more democratic and egalitarian economic, political and social relations (Bowles, Gintis and Gustafsson, 1993; Pagano, 1985, 1991; Hodgson, 1988). On the other hand, it may also be the case that given an undemocratic and nonparticipatory structure of control over investment, maximum short-run private profit for owners of capital is achieved through undemocratic and nonegalitarian labor markets and labor processes that serve to extract more effort from people rather than improve the productivity of a given amount of effort. As Pagano (1991) demonstrates, however, though such a system may be good for private profits, it is less socially efficient than more egalitarian and democratic forms of capitalism (for instance, forms that give workers more rights), once the individual skills, initiative and commitment of workers become important. Socially inefficient forms of organization may persist owing to a vicious circle of mutually supportive property rights, technologies and values. But at the same time there are processes which operate to disrupt the stability of that nexus, dislocations caused by technological innovation (as argued by Pagano, 1991) and mismatches between the real and monetary aspects of a private property, market economy (as argued by Lebowitz, 1994). These provide a space for public action with a transformative potential (Elson, 1992; Young, 1993) which may be able to propel the society into a new trajectory with a new structure of more democratic, egalitarian and socially efficient control and use of investment, which both leads to higher productivity¹¹ and is also valuable in itself for its contribution to humanizing development.

The conceptual framework of the RMSM does not allow for the analysis of endogenously generated transformation. It is stronger on the analysis of existing constraints, than on the analysis of new possibili-

ties. The only way to consider alternative worlds in the framework of this model is to make exogenous changes to the parameters.

5. GENDER RELATIONS AND THE RMSM

The RMSM, like all two-gap models, is gender-blind. The lack of explicit consideration of gender relations does not mean, however, that they play no part in determining the level and rate of growth of aggregate output as depicted in the model. Here it will be argued that gender relations may be introduced into the RMSM via their role in determining the values of parameters, the composition of spending and the form of closure through which inconsistencies in agents' plans tend to be eliminated. The RMSM may also be criticized from a gender perspective for failing to take into account the important complementarities between public sector investment which supports social reproduction and the productivity of private sector investment.

Let us first consider the role that gender relations may play in the determination of the productivity of investment (represented in the model by the value of ICORs). The first point to note is that the invisibility of women's unpaid work in reproduction may give a false impression of the effectiveness of SAPs with respect to improving ICORs. Typically ICORs are calculated from statistics that take no account of non-monetized investment and output in social reproduction. The policy reforms introduced in structural adjustment programs may appear to be having success in reducing the value of ICORs, whereas what they are actually doing is transferring some of the costs of the market economy to the reproductive sector where they are met through unpaid labor (Elson, 1991a). A typical example would be changes in the organization of the health sector which lead to shorter stays by patients in hospitals and appear to be thereby leading to great output per unit of investment. On closer examination it may be revealed that shorter stays in hospital are matched by longer periods of convalescence at home and greater expenditure of nonmonetized resources in patient care. Here the productivity gain is illusory — the output is the same, but there is a transfer of the costs from the monetized public or private sector hospital to the nonmonetized reproductive sector.

The second point is that gender inequality is likely to raise the potential value of ICORs above the level that would prevail with more egalitarian gender relations. There is a wealth of evidence which demonstrates male bias in entitlements to productive resources. Male bias disadvantages women in access to and control of credit and land; in the creation and dissemination of new technologies; and in the acquisition of health, strength and skills. Male bias disadvan-

tages women in labor and product markets and intrafirm labor processes, marginalizing women from decision-making processes; in access to and control of infrastructural services (energy, water, transport, buildings) and in intrahousehold arrangements for the organization of both production of commodities and the social reproduction of people. Male bias excludes women's voices from the policy processes in which public expenditure patterns are determined. There is a large literature on all these forms of male bias which leaves no doubt that they are widespread and have a significant impact on women's well-being¹² (Young, 1993; Kabeer, 1994; Agarwal, 1988; Tinker, 1990; Collier *et al.*, 1991; Birdsall and Sabot, 1991). But in addition, gender inequality just like class inequality, is likely to be a barrier to the most effective and productive use of human resources to meet human needs.

Quantitative evidence can be cited to illustrate this point with respect to control over the use of resources by small-scale producers in particular parts of the private sector. For example, Ongaro (1988) looked at the adoption of new farming technology in maize production in Kenya in the 1980s and investigated the impact of gender relations on the use of technology by comparing the effect of weeding on yields in female-headed households and male-headed households. It was found that in female-headed households the weeding undertaken raised yields by 56%, whereas in male-headed households the increase in yield was only 15%. After controlling for other differences between the two types of household, the study concluded that the most likely explanation was a systematic difference in effort due to differential entitlement structures, with women in female-headed household having more incentive to weed more effectively because they controlled the proceeds of their own work whereas the women in male-headed households did not. Collier (1990) comments that

if Ongaro's sample is representative of rural Kenya, the national maize loss from this disincentive effect is about equal to the maize gain from the application of phosphate and nitrogen fertilisers (p. 7).

Output is also lost because women small-scale producers do not have the same entitlements as men to productive inputs, including education. For instance, another study located in Kenya, Moock's (1976) investigation of the efficiency of women as farm managers, which found that their performance compared very well with that of men, but that their access to resources was more restricted. On the basis of the coefficients in Moock's study, it has been calculated that if the women farmers had the same access to inputs and education as the men farmers in the sample, yields could be increased by 9%. Another study covering beans and cowpeas as well as maize suggests even bigger increases in yields, of around 22%, would be possible if women farmers had the same access to

inputs and education as men farmers (Quisumbing, 1993).

Similar findings are reported in a study of small-scale urban retailers in Peru (Smith and Stelcner, 1990). This established that women were as effective managers of resources as men. Firms with a smaller amount of capital, however, tended to have much higher returns to capital, and a much higher proportion of female-owned firms than male-owned firms had low amounts of capital. Directing increments of capital (via reforms of credit) to female-owned firms would therefore tend to raise the overall rate of return to capital (and *ipso facto* reduce the ICOR).

Similar arguments can be made with respect to eliminating discrimination against women in labor markets. Such discrimination has been treated in economic analysis mainly as an equity issue, but can also be seen as socially inefficient. A pioneering study by Tzannatos (1992) has demonstrated that if gender discrimination in patterns of occupation and pay were eliminated, total output, as well as women's income, could increase considerably.

In counterpoint to this, it is certainly possible to construct scenarios in which greater gender inequality might lead to increased output through extracting more effort from women, prodded by diminishing entitlements and increasing responsibilities. It is also possible to view male-biased institutional norms and practices as conducive to the creation of bonds of solidarity and trust between men that help to fill the gaps in incomplete contracts and increase output by promoting better teamwork among men (Cockburn, 1985). Such effects would also help to explain the persistence of employer discrimination, even though simple models based on preferences that are biased against women predict that there will be a conflict between maximizing profits and discriminating against women. Before concluding that there is therefore a tradeoff between gender equality and productivity, however, we need to consider how far such tradeoffs are globally and intertemporally stable and how far they are the result of localized and time-bound "vicious circles" which can be broken given appropriate interventions. People may be temporarily locked into a particular path-dependent set of unequal gender relations which are conducive to the persistence of behavior patterns that create adverse tradeoffs between equality and productivity. There are clearly parallels here with the debates on productivity and democratic or participatory economic institutions (see for instance Bowles, Gintis and Gustafsson, 1993). Much depends on whether agents' preferences are believed to be exogenous or endogenous. Insofar as agents' preferences are endogenous then there is much more scope for dynamic institutional transformations which can move societies out of vicious circles and into virtuous circles in which equality and efficiency are mutually reinforcing rather than at odds. The key

issue then is how such dynamic transformations can be accomplished. The view taken here is that what is required is not "investment *in* women,"¹³ but investment *with* women in institutional changes which change preferences, perceptions, norms, and rights. In considering the costs of this investment it must be remembered that perpetuating gender inequality is also costly, requiring expenditures that buttress male power without enhancing productivity, a point we return to below.

What is missing are macro-level studies which gather and review available micro evidence on gender inequality and productivity for a particular country and attempt to synthesize their findings to produce some estimate of the implications of failure to reduce male bias for the country's sectoral and aggregate ICORs; and to indicate which forms of male bias have greatest quantitative significance for the value of the ICORs. This is likely to depend on economic structure, with male bias in labor markets being a more significant factor in reducing the return to investment in countries whose production is largely organized through wage employment in private and public sector corporations; and male bias in credit and product markets being more significant in countries where self-employment and small businesses account for a larger share of output. The World Bank is ideally placed to undertake a set of studies of this kind and relate them to the detailed specification of the RMSM for the countries in question. But so far its work on gender has remained largely at the micro level.

Besides the ICORs, the other important parameters in the RMSM are savings and import propensities. Direct evidence linking the degree of gender inequality with the values of these parameters is hard to find. But there is plenty of evidence suggesting that a more equal gender distribution of income would be conducive to spending patterns that contribute to long-term development as well as satisfy immediate needs.

Given the prevailing structures of gender relations, household investment in nutrition, health and education of children tends to be more the responsibility of women than of men. There is a great deal of evidence from all over the world to suggest that there is incomplete pooling of income within households, and that there are significant differences between expenditure from female-controlled income and expenditure from male-controlled income. Women attach a higher priority to expenditure on family nutrition, health and education-related goods (e.g., such as school uniforms) than do men. Men are much more likely than women to spend part of their income on purely personal consumption of commodities such as alcohol, cigarettes, gambling, higher status consumer durables, and female companionship.

Among the important sociological and anthropological studies to have established this are Kumar (1979), Guyer (1980), Tripp (1981), Pahl (1983),

Dwyer and Bruce (1988) and articles in special issues of *Development and Change* (1987) and *World Development* (1989). More recently their findings have been corroborated by econometric studies based on a new class of household models which do not assume a single household utility function. For instance, a positive relationship was found between the proportion of cereals produced under women's control and household consumption of calories in Gambian households by von Braun (1988). Similarly a study in the Philippines found that raising the share of income accruing to wives increased household acquisition of calories and proteins (Garcia, 1990). Particularly revealing is a study of households in the Côte d'Ivoire which found that doubling women's share of cash income raised the budget share of food and lowered the budget share of alcohol and cigarettes (Hoddinott and Haddad, 1992).

Within the context of an extension of the RMSM framework to include human resources as determinants of growth, this evidence could be interpreted as indicating a greater propensity on the part of women than on the part of men to save, and invest the savings in maintenance and enhancement of human capacities. This gendered difference in expenditure patterns may be partly the result of a greater incidence of maternal than paternal altruism. It may be partly the result of information asymmetries — since men are not so involved in the day-to-day care of children, they are not so well informed about the needs of children. It is also likely to be determined by efforts to preserve existing sources of power and advantage. One of the few sources of power and advantage to women in many countries is privileged access to their children, especially sons. Women save and invest in their children to gain and maintain access to this resource. A source of power and advantage to men in many countries is privileged access to an autonomous public sphere of life outside the family. Much of their "leisure" expenditure may be interpreted as expenditure to gain and maintain their access to this sphere, and the alternative to family life that it offers. (Among poor men this public sphere, in which they have "free time," may also serve to reconcile them to their lack of power in relation to richer men.) In both cases an analogy may be made with rent-seeking behavior, understood as expenditure to create and retain some position of advantage; but in the case of women's expenditure on their children, much of the expenditure is directly productive; whereas in the case of men's expenditure on leisure commodities, a considerable proportion of it is directly unproductive (e.g., excessive consumption of alcohol, tobacco, gambling) leading to a depletion rather than an enhancement of human capacities, particularly since it is often associated with violence against women (Elson, 1992). It would be interesting to explore the possibilities of estimating the scale of loss of productive output in

relation to GDP that arises from diversion of resources to these forms of activity that serve to buttress male power and at the same time deplete human resources.

Let us finally turn to the issue of gender and the "closure" of the RMSM. As mentioned above, the problem of *ex-ante* incompatibility of savings and investment is apparently dealt with by assuming that consumption is residually determined to generate whatever level of savings is required to match the investment requirements of the growth target.

In evaluating this assumption, a gender-aware analysis will bring into the picture the role of women's unpaid work in the organization of consumption in the reproductive sector. It is true that a squeeze on consumption of marketed goods can be met to some extent by an increase in output of nonmarketed goods for own-consumption. Clothes can be sewn at home rather than bought ready-made; bread can be baked at home rather than bought from the bakery; grain can be processed by hand rather than taken to the mill; kitchen gardens can be cultivated; "voluntary" labor can be mobilized in community self-help schemes to substitute for public sector provision. It may even be possible for increases and decreases in the amount of time spent in unpaid labor to stabilize total real consumption, even though aggregate consumption as conventionally measured in the national income accounts is changing. There are good reasons not to be complacent, however, for there is a limit to the time that can be made available for increasing production of nonmarketed consumption goods without jeopardizing the supply of exports and the level of investment in human capacities (see Elson, 1995, for a review of some relevant evidence).

In the short run, the most significant feedback loop may be production of export goods, where there is a tradeoff between the allocation of women's time to activities in the reproductive sector and to the production of cash crops or light manufactures. (See Darity, this issue, for a model exploring this tradeoff.) This possible constraint is likely to be more significant the greater the required drop in consumption, the greater the female intensity of export production, the greater the female intensity of production in the reproductive sector, and the lower the level of existing female leisure time.

In the longer run another feedback loop may be of greater significance: that between increasing the extent of the participation of girls in housework, childcare, collecting of fuel and water, cooking, etc., and the education of girls. There is some micro-level evidence to suggest this is an important cause for concern (see Elson, 1995), corroborated by macro-level evidence of setbacks to the education of girls (Rose, this issue). Such setbacks are likely to have adverse effects on productivity, as well as upon the degree of gender inequality and the overall well being of women. Thus, although women's unpaid labor may operate to

cushion the effects of cuts in consumption of marketed goods, and provide some rationale for the treatment of aggregate consumption as residual, it is not available in limitless supply; and placing too great a burden on it will tend to have negative implications for other components of output and investment, some in the medium term and others in the longer run. It will obviously also have negative implications on women's well-being, through loss of time for rest and recuperation.

Drops in consumption may also act as a closure mechanism in structuralist models. In the presence of supply-side constraints, equilibrium is achieved in structuralist models through "forced saving" induced by changes in the distribution of income brought about by price changes (Taylor, 1988, p. 28). Typically it is assumed that savings out of wages are lower than out of profits, and that a savings gap induces price changes that redistribute income to profits, forcing wage-based households to reduce their consumption, and generating a higher level of aggregate savings. The role of "forced labor" (i.e. increases in the amount of unpaid work done in the reproductive sector) in permitting forced savings to be extracted has, however, been ignored.

Let us now summarize this argument. We have suggested that the RMSM could be made gender-aware by relating the values of some key parameters, and the form of "closure" of the model, to the degree of gender inequality. The model could be iterated with parameter changes representing a move to more egalitarian gender relations. We must, however, end on a note of caution. The RMSM is structured in ways that may lead us to be overoptimistic about the impact on total output and of human well-being of greater gender equality in processes of production and spending. This is because it assumes away the possibility of mismatches between aggregate supply and aggregate demand, and hence neglects the possibility of underutilization of capacity and unemployment. It may well be, however, that institutionalizing a gender perspective in macroeconomic policy processes would help to diminish such mismatches. This argument is discussed in the final section of the paper.

6. THE SMALL DEPENDENT ECONOMY MODEL OF STRUCTURAL ADJUSTMENT

The macro changes in the structure of resource allocation required to achieve macroeconomic balance without sacrificing growth have been analyzed by economists¹⁴ inside and outside the Bank on the basis of the Swan-Salter model of a small open economy. This model divides the economy into two sectors, the tradable and the nontradable.¹⁵ The combinations of tradable and nontradable output which a given set of resources can produce is assumed to take the

form of a well-behaved production possibility curve. Macroeconomic imbalance is depicted in terms of the demand for tradables exceeding supply, the causes for which may be internal (such as an overexpansion of government expenditure) or external (such as an unfavorable trade shock). Structural adjustment implies a switch of resources to the production of tradables and a switch in expenditure away from the consumption of tradables through a combination of policies designed to raise the domestic price of tradables relative to nontradables, and reduce the domestic absorption of tradables. In addition, deregulation is expected to have an additional effect of increasing the size of the production possibility set by eliminating rent-seeking and directly unproductive activities (comparable to the effect of reducing ICORs in the RMSM). The net result is then expected to be restoration of internal and external balance with an expansion of output, achieved through a change in the structure of the economy in terms of the division of resources between tradables and nontradables.

The small dependent economy model offers an almost complete contrast to the RMSM. There are just two important similarities — the assumption that adjustment takes place with a given set of fully utilized resources, and the lack of formal specification of the structure of entitlements. But otherwise, this model offers flexibility, whereas the RMSM offers rigidity; this model shows a balance-of-payments deficit being eliminated, with growth of output and full employment during a process of costless resource reallocation (typically depicted in terms of sliding along a smooth production possibility frontier), whereas the RMSM shows a balance-of-payments deficit persisting and constraining growth, so that foreign aid is required for an expansion of output. The small dependent economy model does not provide a justification for aid, since the economy is depicted as capable of growth-lead adjustment provided the right combination of policy instruments is used. One can think of possible justifications in terms of political economy, e.g., the aid is needed to "persuade" reluctant policy makers to "get the prices right"; or to compensate dispossessed rent-seekers.¹⁶ But these lie outside the model. Within the model, as normally presented, the only clue that aid might have a role to play lies in the idea that the prices of nontradables might be subject to downward stickiness. This opens up a space for the possibility of micro-level rigidities which slow down the speed of response to the policy measures¹⁷; and aid may be introduced into the framework as a way of promoting a faster response. Although no particular entitlement structure is specified, the model is often applied in ways that suggest that the agents whose response is in question are independent farmers, traders and artisans, free to choose whether transfer from production of nontradables to production of tradables. Supply constraints, rather

than demand constraints, are identified as the possible problem; whereas SAPs are likely to increase the likelihood of deficient demand by reducing the role of the state as buyer of last resort.

The small dependent economy model is not operationalizable in the same way as the RMSM since the aggregates it uses do not directly correspond to national accounting categories, and the functional relations it postulates cannot easily be expressed in terms of simple coefficients. It is a heuristic model designed to provide an argument for the use of a particular combination of policy instruments rather than to quantify their effects in an operational way. It is open to criticism on the grounds that it misspecifies the relation between the production of tradables and nontradables by posing them as substitutes, whereas in many instances they are complementary. The model also is open to criticism for neglecting the issue of risk. It takes the world market prices facing a particular country as "given" but fails to emphasize that although, in many cases, these prices can plausibly be taken as given in the sense of being exogenously determined, they are not "given" in the sense of being constant or certain. Very many adjusting economies, especially in sub-Saharan Africa, have faced fluctuating and deteriorating terms of trade during their adjustment programs. Attempts to increase the production of tradables may jeopardize the security of people's livelihoods. A third weakness of the model is that it leaves out of account the way in which restructuring tends to change the nature and composition of the labor force itself (rather than simply transferring it from one sector to another), making some existing elements redundant, while calling into being new categories of paid workers and calling into play new types of skills and ways of using them.

The basic model makes no reference to gender. The lack of explicit reference does not mean that gender relations play no role in determining how resources are transferred and reallocated in the process of structural adjustment. Both feminist and neoclassical economists have discussed gender in this context (Elson, 1989 and 1992; Collier, 1990, 1994). In the next section we discuss the neoclassical account.¹⁸

7. GENDER IN THE SMALL DEPENDENT ECONOMY: A NEOCLASSICAL ANALYSIS

Collier's neoclassical analysis of gender and adjustment focuses in particular on the theme of "gender aspects of labour allocation during structural adjustment" (Collier, 1994). Gender analysis, for Collier, is fundamentally a matter of disaggregation. It is worth quoting his account of his method at some length.

Gender is one of many ways in which data can be disaggregated and the rationale for doing this is twofold. First, in earning income, women often face different constraints from men. Since structural adjustment is largely about changing constraints, if those facing women and men are sufficiently different, it is illuminating to treat the genders as distinct groups rather than studying gender-undifferentiated averages. Second, women and men often have radically different propensities to consume particular public services and so budgetary changes can have powerfully gender-differentiated effects . . . It should be stressed that gender is not a topic in itself but rather a possible disaggregation to be borne in mind when studying a topic . . . Sometimes gender disaggregation will not add enough to be worthwhile. However, for some topics it will be useful and for others essential . . . A corollary of this rationale for an analysis which distinguishes between women and men is that, generally, there is not a small, self-contained set of "women's issues" which can be appended to an otherwise unaltered analysis. Rather, the claim is that many standard issues in resource allocation became better illuminated when the analysis is disaggregated by gender (Collier, 1990, pp. 149–150).

There is much to agree with here, but there is a danger that in treating gender simply as a form of disaggregation of agents, gender inequality is located outside the economy in social norms and personal psychology and the issue of women's lack of independent economic entitlements is not made central to the analysis. Thus it is with Collier's analysis which identifies the constraints that women face in deciding how to use their labor in terms of the following four distinct processes (1990, p. 159):

- (a) discrimination against women outside the household;
- (b) copying of gender-specific role models;
- (c) asymmetric rights and obligations within households leading to weak incentives for women to undertake tasks in male-controlled cash crop production;
- (d) the burden of [biological] reproduction,¹⁹ leading to confinement to a restricted range of economic activities that are more easily compatible with motherhood.

A more extensive discussion of the nature of these processes is to be found in Collier (1988) and Collier *et al.* (1991) which makes more explicit the assumption that the constraints stem from outside the economy in biological processes ("the physiological asymmetry of reproduction"); in social conventions and traditions about appropriate gender roles; and in individual preferences, whether preferences that discriminate against women or women's own lack of aspiration to achieve higher income or status. Key to the perpetuation of these four processes is the tendency of boys to copy men and girls to copy women: all of

which points in the direction of women choosing to be unequal and disadvantaged. There is no counteracting focus on coercion; and the pressures stemming from women's lack of control over resources which confine them to a limited range of activities. But nor is there any allowance for women challenging and changing gender norms. The potential idiosyncrasy of preference is paradoxically constrained by a kind of "iron law" of imitation.²⁰

Collier combines disaggregation of economic agents by gender with a sectoral disaggregation of activities which distinguishes between protected and unprotected tradables; and between marketed and nonmarketed output. This latter is identified, however, purely in terms of public sector services.²¹ There is no attempt to look at the economy through women's eyes, and to include domestic care and maintenance of human beings as a significant economic activity. The process of adjustment is specified in terms of the need to move labor from nontradables and protected tradables, to tradables. It is argued that gender is a significant disaggregation in this context if men and women are initially allocated differentially between the sectors and have differing capacities for mobility because of facing differing constraints.

For example, women might be disproportionately located in sectors which need to contract and at the same time have less capacity than men to reallocate resources to sectors which should expand (Collier, 1990, p. 152).²²

To answer this question requires an analysis of "the various processes by which female-controlled resources (primarily their own labour) are allocated" (Collier, 1994, p. 279). The presence of constraints to the mobility of women's labor, it is argued, will both have an adverse impact on women and an adverse impact on the achievement of an expansionary adjustment. Collier focuses particular attention on barriers to women shifting to export crop production in sub-Saharan Africa. In this context, it is argued that constraints (b) and (c) are likely to be important. Gender-specific role model imitation (constraint (b)) is held to be a factor constraining the adoption of export crops by female-headed households in situations where export crops have typically been grown under male control and are identified as "male" crops. In support of this, reference is made to a study of the adoption of tea in Kenya²³ (Bevan, Collier and Gunning, 1989) which suggests that female-headed households had only half the propensity to adopt tea as male-headed households (the implication being that this is connected to women having fewer women tea producers as role models to copy).

There are reasons to be skeptical about the identification of gender-specific imitation as a key factor. For instance, it may be that farmers do not so much copy what their neighbors do as learn from what their neighbors do. Learning probably requires interaction

(e.g., asking questions) as well as observation, and there may well be gender barriers to those kinds of interactions between male farmers and female farmers unless they are members of the same household. Furthermore, it may be that female heads of households do not adopt export crops to the same degree as men because of unidentified differences between themselves and male heads of households (such as greater risk aversion because of greater direct responsibilities for well-being of children). In addition, marketing boards may operate out-grower schemes in ways that disbar many women farmers from obtaining licenses to grow tree crops even if they wish to do so.

The other constraint that is emphasized by Collier is constraint (c), asymmetric rights and obligations within households which result in a weak incentive for women in male-headed households to spend more time and effort on export crop production. This occurs because the receipts from export crop sales tend to accrue to the male household heads, even though the bulk of the work may have been done by their wives. Collier sees this as an instance of the "principal-agent" problem; but although there is frequently a gender-differentiated incentive problem in cash-crop production in sub-Saharan Africa, one may question whether it is best characterized as a "principal-agent" problem. For it arises most acutely precisely in circumstances in which women are not in a "principal-agent" relation with their husbands; that is, there is more of a problem when women are not empowered to act on behalf of their husbands in export cash-crop production, exercising authority delegated to them by him.²⁴ When women do enjoy such delegated authority, perhaps in the supervision of a jointly run family business, there is likely to be far less of an incentive problem and more propensity for team work. But the situation of many women farmers in sub-Saharan Africa is much more akin to that of a taxpayer²⁵; their husbands possess the authority to attempt to exact from their wives some payment of labor services in cash-crop production in return for which there will be provision of services similar to those provided by the state — such as protection against predators, a degree of social insurance, and some transfer of income in cash or kind, bearing no particular relation to work done. Just like many taxpayers, many women farmers tend to try to minimize their tax burden by finding loopholes in existing tax structures; and they tend to contest the legitimacy of new tax demands, unless they are convinced that sufficient benefits will flow (or penalties be avoided). Other things being equal many women seem to prefer to spend additional working time on activities from which all the proceeds accrue directly to them and which are under their authority, such as (in many cases) food-crops production in fields assigned to them by their husbands for this purpose.²⁶ In some circumstances women have sufficient autonomy to assert this preference, and then

gender relations do indeed constitute a barrier to the transfer of women's labor from nontradables to tradables. In other circumstances men are powerful enough to override women's preferences, or women feel that they have to cooperate with husbands to secure their children's future and women do transfer labor to export cash crop production. Studies in Zaire have come up with examples of both situations. In southeastern Shaba where high-yielding maize varieties were introduced women continued to cultivate manioc (which was indispensable to the family food supply) rather than switch their labor to their husbands' maize fields. However, in north and central Shaba, women proved to be insufficiently autonomous to refuse their husbands' demands on their labor, and ceased to grow a second peanut crop and cultivate their family food gardens (Schoepf and Engundu, 1991, p. 160).

It is not necessarily a cause for celebration when women do transfer their labor to export cash-crop production, for such a transfer may jeopardize other important objectives such as household food security. Nor does such a transfer indicate only weak gender constraints on women's economic activities. Rather it may signify the presence of much more profound constraints than those identified by Collier — constraints placed by the exercise of male power on the ability of women to decide how to allocate their own labor, and to treat it as their own asset, rather than an asset belonging in the first instance to their husband or father or a senior male relative. The weakness of women's entitlements is illustrated by the fact that women's labor is not generally a fully female-controlled resource. As Jones found in her studies of rice cultivation in north Cameroon "married women are expected to work in their husbands' fields if they are not working in their own. If they refuse to work in their husbands' fields, they risk a beating!" (Jones, 1986, p. 11). This is one graphic instance of the fact that women frequently face not just constraints on the content of their decisions about how to use their own labor owing to their precommitment of their time to motherhood and household duties and subsistence production; but also constraints on the extent to which they are free to be autonomous decision makers, as a result to their confinement within a set of parameters laid down by men and policed by nonmarket mechanisms. The problem for many women farmers in sub-Saharan Africa is conflict of expectations and obligations.²⁷ They are expected and obliged to produce food crops to supply household food needs and to supply labor for production of export crops controlled by their husbands. The conflict is exacerbated by low productivity in household food-crop production and low cash returns to export crops. The latter frequently persist in spite of the fact that structural adjustment programs are supposed to improve incentives for small farmers, because of rising costs of farm inputs,

lack of credit to support timely payments to farmers, and falling international prices. It is likely that many women are being required to work more in their own fields and their husbands' fields. Rather than being encouraged to transfer labor from one activity to another they are being pushed and prodded (both metaphorically and literally) to supply more labor to both activities.

One reason for this conflict is that gender relations also affect the mobility of men's labor and the mobilization of men's time, constraining the transfer of men's time and effort into tasks regarded as "women's work," whether they be agricultural tasks such as weeding, transplanting, plucking or social reproduction tasks such as gathering fuel and water, and cooking. The sanction here is not domestic violence but loss of masculine identity through performance of "unmanly tasks" with all this implies for recognition of both social and sexual potency. Interestingly, Collier does not address this kind of constraint in the transfer of male labor between different activities. Although he talks about gender, it is women's activities, not men's, which are seen as the problem. This is symptomatic of the fact that the economy is not viewed from women's perspective, even though the labor variable is disaggregated by gender. The male angle of vision is reflected in the failure to integrate social reproduction into the model as a set of activities which are fundamental to the future growth of the economy. Insofar as time spent in the social reproduction sector is mentioned, it is only as a constraint upon the mobility of women to the tradables sector, not as a necessary activity which underpins both the production of tradables and the promotion of human well-being. Much more attention is paid to the issue of social reproduction by Palmer (1991) in an analysis which in some other respects is comparable to that of Collier.²⁸

The kind of gender analysis proposed by Collier makes little difference to the basic vision of the small dependent economy model. It simply implies that gender differentiation will increase the time it takes to transfer resources from nontradables to tradables, so that the economy will be in disequilibrium for longer than it would be with more equitable gender relations. The policy implication is that structural adjustment programs should target women with measures to reduce barriers to their incorporation into the tradable sector, and provide more aid to cushion the economy while these measures take time to work.

It is, moreover, an analysis developed with the economic and social structure of rural sub-Saharan African in mind, with limited applicability to other locations in which small-holder cash crops are not the main tradable. It is predicated on a structure of entitlements in which women have not yet been dispossessed of nonmarket access to land but have weak entitlements to complementary inputs. For women,

that is both a source of strength and a source of weakness. They have a fallback position which may often be stronger than that of women who have no land. But their disconnection from the circuits of capital means there is little interest in investing to increase the productivity of their farming. The key gender issue in the reallocation of resources during structural adjustment is not the immobility of women's labor, but women's weak and unbalanced entitlements, and lack of voice in the determination of economic priorities.

Measures to improve women's mobility from non-tradables to tradables are in any case of little use if there is insufficient demand for their labor in the tradable goods sector. Urban women in many parts of sub-Saharan Africa do not seem to be faced with expanding opportunities for employment in the production of tradables, while rural women who move to producing cash crops for export have seen falling international terms of trade erode their return. The problems lie not only in gender-differentiated responses to market-led adjustment, but also in the reliance on markets as currently constructed to mobilize resources for production. But the institutionalization of a gender perspective may also have a role to play in improving the systems through which millions of individual decisions are aggregated to create a macroeconomy.

8. GENDER AND THE POLITICAL ECONOMY OF AGGREGATION

The creation of macroeconomic aggregates such as consumption, savings, investment, and gross national product is not simply the work of government statisticians. The figures in the national accounts represent real processes of aggregation in which the plans of millions of decision makers are synthesized via the operation of a variety of monetized transactions in the private and public sectors. If these plans do not "add up" (i.e., are not compatible), some will have to be changed; and the way these plans are changed depends, among other things, on the patterns of command over resources (or structure of entitlements). Macro models reflect this in the way they depict the closure of the model. Those with fewer entitlements will count for less and the process of aggregation will reflect the priorities of those with strongest control of resources.

The process of aggregation is more likely to result in a sustainable macroeconomy producing patterns of employment and output that meet peoples needs if it is a socially inclusive process which encourages a degree of mutuality and reciprocity, capable of internalizing externalities, and looking beyond short term profits (see Elson, 1988; Howes and Singh, this issue).

Thus macroeconomic analysis needs to be concerned with the social matrix within which macroeconomic processes unfold (Taylor, 1988). All over the world, women and women's organizations tend to be

relatively excluded from an independent role in the social matrix. Their inclusion on an autonomous basis might well make an important difference in institutionalizing a perspective that recognizes interdependencies which neither market nor bureaucratic transactions reveal, and puts more emphasis on reciprocity and consensus-building — not because women are essentially more attuned to these insights and values, but because their life experiences have tended to foster such views. As Gita Sen puts it:

A gender perspective means recognizing that women stand at the crossroads between production and reproduction, between economic activity and the care of human beings, and therefore between economic growth and human development. They are workers in both spheres — those most responsible and therefore with most at stake, those who suffer the most when the two spheres meet at cross purposes, and those most sensitive to the need to better integration between the two (Sen, 1995, p. 12).

Such a belief in the transformatory potential of institutionalizing a gender perspective in the social matrix in which macroeconomic processes are embedded is central to the strategy of the DAWN network of women activists in the South (see DAWN, this issue). Such institutionalization requires more than women's access to the policy-making process. It requires a change in the structure of entitlements so that the dice are no longer loaded against those who are not large-scale owners of money capital. To access the potential prospects for the gains from institutionalizing a gender perspective, formal model building has to be complemented with comparative institutional analysis at national and international level, which considers gender as an intervening variable in all the parts of the system from which macroeconomic results emerge.

9. CONCLUSIONS

Gender-awareness in macroeconomic analysis requires that we look at economic models from the standpoint of women's lives, in which much time is devoted to unpaid work in social reproduction as well as to paid work in production; and that we recognize unequal gender relations as an intervening variable that structures economic processes at macro, meso and micro levels. The models that inform the design of structural adjustment programs are gender-blind. Nevertheless, we have shown that gender is likely to have a significant role in determining the parameters and processes of closure of the model used to examine growth prospects and aid requirements; and that this significance is enhanced when the framework is extended to cover investment in human capacities and social reproduction. We have also considered the model used to analyze resource reallocation from non-

tradables to tradables; and the introduction of gender into this framework via the gender disaggregation of economic agents, and the postulate of differential gender mobility. Our conclusion was that this approach to gender awareness is limited by a lack of appreciation for the role that women's work in social reproduction plays in producing a vital input for the production of both tradables and nontradables, namely, the labor force. Sustainable structural adjustment requires investment in social reproduction, not merely the transfer of labor from nontradables. In addition, more significant than differential gender mobility with respect to labor, is the persistence of gender segregation in social reproduction activities, and in the production of both nontradables and tradables; together with the persistence of male-biased entitlement structures which limit the control that women have over resources, even their own labor.

A limitation of both the models we have discussed is their neglect of the waste of resources and impoverishment that stems from deficient aggregate demand, from undemocratic decision making, and from directly unproductive expenditures that serve to buttress male power. We have argued that these kinds of waste of resources, are likely to be diminished by moves to more egalitarian systems of gender relations. Though maintaining gender inequality may sometimes lead to higher profits in the short run, it also tends to generate negative feedbacks which hamper the process of restructuring to a development path which is sustainable in the long run. The outcome of macroeconomic policies depends upon the gendered social matrix in which they are introduced. But that gendered social matrix could in principle be changed in ways that promote both more effective macroeconomic policies and greater gender equality.

NOTES

1. The term social reproduction is widely used in feminist economics (Humphries and Rubery, 1984; Folbre, 1994; Picchio, 1992) to refer to the social and material processes through which the labor force, or the human population as a whole, is maintained and renewed on a daily and intergenerational basis.

2. Gender relations are helpfully defined by Young (1993) as follows: "gender relations are those socially constituted relations between men and women which are shaped and sanctioned by norms and values held by members of a given society (but not necessarily held with same degree of firmness)" (p. 138).

3. For a thoughtful discussion of the interplay between agency and structure in the perpetuation and restructuring of gender relations, see Young (1993), p. 139.

4. "Classical capitalism" is the term used by Pagano (1991) to refer to a system based on labor markets in which workers hold few rights in contrast to "company workers' capitalism" and "unionised capitalism." We may observe that women's paid employment has predominantly been "classically capitalist" even in economies in which many male workers have become stakeholders in the company employing them (e.g., Japan) or have obtained job rights through trade union organization (e.g., Germany).

5. There is a fierce debate about the factors leading to the East Asian miracle and the relatively successful adjustment of newly industrialized countries (NICs), such as Indonesia (see, for instance, Amsden, 1994). The argument focuses on state intervention vs. "getting the prices right" in industrial strategy. Far less attention has been paid to the labor market and labor process dimensions of this performance, and the balance of entitlements as between labor and capital.

6. For studies which illuminate the class and gender dimensions of restructuring with stagnation in Latin America, see Ruccio (1991) and Tanski (1994).

7. "Deregulated" labor markets are more properly seen as labor markets in which owners of labor power have few rights in comparison with owners of other assets.

8. "The dice are loaded."

9. There is not a great deal of material published on the details of the model and how it has been used in conjunction with the introduction of structural adjustment programs; here we shall rely primarily on the accounts provided by Addison (1989) and Tarp (1993).

10. Structuralist economics does not form one consolidated body of theory, but comprises a variety of ideas and concepts, united by a common agreement on the restricted usefulness of assumptions such as perfect competition, well-functioning markets and free mobility of resources. Tarp (1993) distinguishes at one end of the spectrum "neoclassical structuralism" which recognizes a series of supply-side constraints at the micro level; and "macro structuralism" which emphasizes demand-side constraints whose causes are embedded in the underlying economic, social and political characteristics of society. "Macro structuralism" is exemplified by Bacha (1984), Fitzgerald (1988) and Taylor (1989) among others.

11. And to more adequate definitions of productivity, which take into account the need for conservation of human and natural resources and measure productivity in terms of effectiveness in meeting human needs.

12. Where there is debate in this literature is on the processes through which male bias is produced and reproduced: there is disagreement about how far this is due to individual preferences (such as men's prejudice and women's low aspirations); and how far due to social structures and institutional norms. Discrimination and discouragement can be the result of either or both, and conventional of forms empirical testing are frequently inconclusive (Humphries, 1994).

13. "Investing in women" is the official slogan of the World Bank (see World Bank, 1994). It reflects a point of view in which women are seen more as resources for the achievement of development, than as people whose control over resources should be strengthened.

14. See for instance, Lal (1984) and (1989); Demery and Addison (1987); Gillis *et al.* (1992); World Bank (1990a).

15. Tradable goods and services are those whose prices within the country are determined by supply and demand in world markets. It is assumed that world market prices are exogenously determined (and this is the sense in which the economy is small and dependent). Nontradables are goods and services that are not easily or usually traded across the country's borders, owing to very high transport costs, or impossibility of separating production and consumption. Examples usually given are activities such as transportation, construction, retail trade and household services (Gillis *et al.*, 1992, p. 581). Prices of these nontradable goods are determined by supply and demand within each country.

16. Further discussion of this point is beyond the scope of this paper. For extensive discussion see Mosley, Harrigan, and Toye (1991).

17. Lal (1984 and 1989), for instance, focuses on immobility of labor and capital.

18. Though the approach is fundamentally neoclassical, it may be seen as having elements of an institutional analysis in the way it treats gender roles (Lockwood, 1992) and elements of a "neoclassical structuralist" perspective in the way that it treats micro-rigidities (Tarp, 1993).

19. Collier does not distinguish biological and social reproduction but it is evident from the examples given — "the physical demands of child-bearing and breast feeding" that "reproduction" here means a biological process.

20. "... a universal feature of human behaviour: the tendency to imitate or copy role models" (Collier, 1994, p. 286).

21. Though increasing introduction of user charges means that more and more public sector output is marketed.

22. Collier attempts to operationalize this conceptual framework by matching his sectoral disaggregation of activities with the activity categories to be found in conventional statistics of national output. In the case of sub-Saharan Africa, he argues, manufacturing is the protected tradable sector; nonfood export crop agriculture the unprotected tradable; and marketed services, trade and construction the non-tradable sector. Food crop production can potentially be in any of those three sectors, depending on the circumstances of

the particular country, and can only be assigned after investigating those circumstances. On the basis of this kind of rough approximation, it is possible to match the sectors with employment data, and make some estimates of the percentage of the female labor force engaged in each sector, and of the female percentage of the total labor force engaged in each sector (or female intensity of the sector). This analysis assumes that tradability of a product and the female intensity of its production are independent variables. That may not be the case, however. While "the designation as between tradable and non-tradable depends upon transport costs" (Collier, 1990, p. 153), transport costs are themselves gendered. Women frequently lack transport entitlements (Calvo, 1994), so that food crops grown by women are more likely to be nontradable than food crops grown by men.

23. This study controlled for age and gender of household head, male and female labor endowment of the household, the proportion of households growing tea, and whether the household is already growing coffee.

24. The modern principal-agent literature, in contrast with an earlier literature, does tend to elide the difference between the two circumstances. (Compare the old and new entries on principal and agent in the *New Palgrave Dictionary of Economics*, p. 966.) Much is thereby lost, such as the importance of the distinction between those employees who are engaged to act on the owners behalf, exercising authority delegated to them ("managers") and those employees who are not engaged to exercise authority but rather be subject to it ("workers").

25. Palmer (1991) has also drawn an analogy between the situation of women farmers in sub-Saharan Africa and taxpayers, but she argues that it is the obligation to undertake the work of social reproduction which is akin to a tax. The problem here is that the process through which that obligation is enforced and met are not directly comparable to paying tax, since women undertake a great deal of the work of social reproduction for those who are weaker and have less authority, especially for children.

26. For further discussion on this issue see Roberts (1979), Guyer (1980); Gladwin and McMillan (1989); Whitehead (1990); Kabeer (1991); and Dey (1993).

27. Whitehead (1990) refers to "the growing evidence (in rural Africa) of struggles over new rights and obligations between household members: these are about the use of household labour, especially the labour input to cash crop supply, about the sexual designation of tasks and about the distribution of household income and how it is spent" (p. 58).

28. Further discussion of Palmer is outside the scope of this paper, but see Elson (1994).

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